

Educational Computers in Germany in the 1980s

The Busch Microtronic, the Kosmos CP1, and the Philips MasterLab

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*Original German articles by **Michael Wessel**, published in LOAD #10 (2024) [8] and LOAD #11 (2025) [9] — the magazine of the VzEkC e.V. English translation and combined edition by **Claude** (**Anthropic**, **Opus 4.8**).*

This is a revised, all-in-one English edition that merges the two original LOAD articles into a single piece. It also incorporates recent developments (2025–2026) that were not yet available when the German originals were written.

A print-ready PDF (US Letter) is **included in this repository**. The faithful, unmerged per-article translations are under **translations/**. Citations in square brackets [N] refer to the numbered References.

Introduction

In the early 1980s a new home-computer category appeared on the already nearly saturated German market: the **educational and experimentation computer** (*Lern- und Experimentiercomputer*). When, at the end of 1981, the first such machine for “technically interested laypeople” appeared in German department stores — the Busch 2090 Microtronic — 8-bit home computers were already widespread in Germany. Worth mentioning in particular are the representatives of the “Trinity” (Apple II, TRS-80, Commodore PET), but also the VC-20, Atari 400 and 800, Sharp MZ-80, Sinclair ZX80 and ZX81, and the Texas Instruments TI-99/4a. There was thus no shortage of home computers — so why a new device category? And what distinguishes such a computer from a classic CPU development system or a CPU trainer?

Predecessors. Well-known representatives of the trainer category include the KIM-1 (1976, 6502-based, MOS Technology) and the MK-14 (1978, Science of Cambridge, SC/MP / INS8060 CPU). In the USA the COSMAC ELF (RCA 1802) and the Heathkit ET-3400 trainer (Motorola 6800) had been around since 1976, and there were various self-build projects in the relevant computer magazines. It can be assumed, though it is not documented, that these CPU trainers at least inspired

the German educational computers. Jörg Vallen — who from autumn 1979 was substantially involved in developing the Microtronic as part of his diploma thesis — summed up the need for a new category in the preamble of his thesis [3]:

“At the time development of an experimentation and educational computer began, in autumn 1979, microcomputers of this kind were hardly to be found on the market. There were as yet no devices that enabled non-specialists to familiarize themselves with microprocessor technology. (...) Only so-called development systems were offered by the large semiconductor manufacturers, in order to give engineers with appropriate training the opportunity to learn the workings of a particular microprocessor type. Accordingly, these systems were designed from the electronic side. The manuals and descriptions written by specialists were (and largely still are today) incomprehensible to non-specialists without basic knowledge.”

Later, Hans Vallen — then head of the Busch company and father of Jörg Vallen — used the term “computer driving school” to characterize the Microtronic [6]. So what defines an educational and experimentation computer? Four points stand out:

- **Educational focus.** The target group is “interested laypeople”, and children and teenagers in particular. The manuals especially must therefore be designed with a certain didactic standard — many classic CPU trainers are inadequate here, and many were only available as kits. The educational angle surely also convinced some parents that an educational computer was a better buy than a BASIC home computer used mainly for games (which would moreover compete for the family television set).
- **Experimentation focus.** The aim is not only to learn programming, but also to combine it with experiments on electronic circuits (“physical computing”). General-purpose input/output ports (GPIOs) are therefore required — ideally robust against miswiring, to enable “worry-free experimentation”. Today one would use an Arduino for this; in contrast, the educational computers of the 1980s were complete systems that needed no additional “PC” for programming.
- **Cost.** A “real” BASIC home computer was an expensive barrier to entry. With the exception of the Sinclair ZX80/81, these still cost around DM 700 and up, plus peripherals, software and books — and that only changed with the price collapse of 1984. By contrast, the Microtronic was advertised in 1981 [7] at DM 379, falling to DM 299 by 1984. For comparison: a VC-20 still cost DM 798 at the end of 1981 — a full week's salary, given an average German annual income of DM 30,900.
- **Availability.** CPU trainers were hard for ordinary consumers to obtain — often kit-only and known only to readers of electronics and amateur-radio magazines. Department stores did not carry them. The educational computers, by contrast, were sold where families actually shopped.

German educational computers are a fascinating and magnificent piece of technical history that did not exist in this form in other countries.

How this article is structured

This article presents three representatives of the German educational/experimentation category, **in historical order**, each in its own section:

1. the **Busch Microtronic** (1981) — a 4-bit TMS1600-based machine with a remarkably terse

- and powerful interpreted instruction set;
2. the **Kosmos CP1** (1983) — an 8-bit Intel 8049-based decimal von-Neumann machine with an unusually rich set of GPIOs;
 3. the **Philips MasterLab** (1983) — an INS8070 (SC/MP III)-based machine that is, of the three, the only “real” CPU trainer.

A comparison and an overall conclusion follow at the end.

1. The Busch Microtronic (1981)

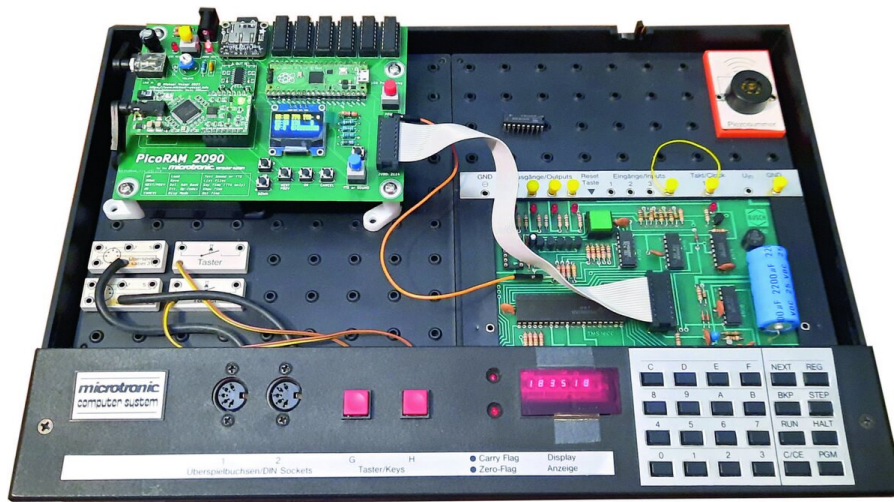


Figure 1. The Busch Microtronic, shown with the modern PicoRAM 2090 SD-card expansion [14].

Busch electronics kits had been available in Germany since 1976; until October 1981 they were distributed under the name “ELOtronic” by the Franzis publishing house. The Microtronic was conceived as the complement and flagship of the Busch electronics-kit series. Its appearance can be called elegant and high-quality — the case and build make a sturdy impression, the smoked-glass cover looks professional, and the keyboard allows even longer program entry without frustration, in no way inferior to the TI calculator keyboards of the era (TI-30, TI-58/59).

The heart of the Microtronic is a mask-programmed **TMS1600 4-bit microcontroller, clocked at 500 kHz**. The firmware contains the operating system and an interpreter for a virtual machine language. The Microtronic is therefore programmed not in TMS1600 machine language, but in a higher-level Microtronic machine language — easier to learn, and offering very powerful instructions, for example for multiplication and division.

Development. Development work began in autumn 1979. The hardware and operating system were carried out, to Busch's specifications, by the company “MRT – Mess- und Regeltechnik” in Kaisersbach (now insolvent); Jörg Vallen worked there directly as part of his thesis and made essential contributions. Texas Instruments in Freising took over production of the mask-programmed TMS1600. The instruction set, originally 20 instructions, was expanded to 41 in the second development phase — again with Jörg Vallen instrumental: as the first application developer, following “eat your own dog food!”, he identified deficits and further desirable instructions (random numbers, multiplication, division). The thesis [3] also reveals that originally a TMS1xxx development system with EPROMs was used (possibly an HE-2), and that the finished operating system was

handed over to TI "on a floppy disk". As program memory, the developers connected a 2114 SRAM chip via the TMS1600 "GPIO port" — although the TMS family, as a "computer on a chip", provides for no external memory at all. The 1 KByte of 4-bit words of the 2114 is used as program memory; the SRAM on the TMS1600 holds the 32 4-bit Microtronic registers and monitor variables.

Harvard architecture. The program memory comprises 256 addresses (0x00–0xFF), and each instruction is three nibbles (12 bits). Program and data memory are strictly separated: as program-writable data memory the Microtronic offers exclusively the registers (plus immediate-addressing instructions). Of the 32 registers, 16 are working and the rest background registers, swappable in banks of 8 so that data can be transferred between foreground and background. All logical-arithmetic operations and data must fit into these 32 4-bit registers. The hexadecimal number system is used; the hex keypad has eight function keys, and the display is a six-digit seven-segment "bubble LED" display (as in old TI calculators), with two LEDs for the carry and zero flags. A green reset key is on the board — and the program memory survives a reset. A DIL expansion socket connects the "2095" cassette interface; four digital outputs, four digital inputs, and a 1 Hz clock signal are brought out as plug sockets.

Built-in programs. On power-up the monitor shows "00 000" — address on the left, instruction on the right (both hex). RUN starts at the current address; the monitor offers single-step (STEP) and breakpoints (BRK), and register inspection/editing via REG. PGM calls built-in programs: cassette load/save (PGM 1/2), the NIM game (PGM 7), clear memory (PGM 5), self-test (PGM 0), and display/set the (non-battery-backed) real-time clock (PGM 3/4). PGM 6 fills memory with NOPs.

Instruction set. The instruction set is terse, pragmatic and must be called extremely well-designed. It includes instructions to control the display (showing up to six consecutive registers), keyboard input, GPIO, random numbers, time-of-day queries, logical-arithmetic and bitwise operations, and hex/decimal conversion. Most operations can be performed equally in all registers — the set is very orthogonal, similar to modern RISC CPUs. The carry flag combines arbitrary 4-bit registers into larger ones, so addition and subtraction can run up to 64 bits (division is limited to four, multiplication to six digits). Set flags trigger conditional jumps. Subroutines exist (CALL/RET) but cannot be nested. The biggest shortcoming is that only two addressing modes are supported (immediate and register-direct); jump targets are always immediate, so they cannot be computed — indirect and computed jumps, and thus recursion, require relatively complicated trickery. (The author nonetheless succeeded in implementing a recursive Towers of Hanoi on the Microtronic [10].) None of this harms the overall impression of a universal computer; the manual programs are throughout quite general — the NIM game actually computes the optimal winning strategy. Interpreting the instruction set costs time, though: a typical maximum is about 114 instructions per second, dropping to about 40 with the display on; some programs (e.g. dividing 9999 by 1) take up to 8 seconds.

Manual. The two-volume manual [1], written by Jörg Vallen and lovingly illustrated with the "Buschi" mascot, is didactically excellent: Part 1 introduces the Microtronic, Part 2 covers more complex programs, circuits and experiments with additional Busch kits. Highlights include a moon-landing game, a perpetual calendar, biorhythm calculation, a calculator, tic-tac-toe and sine computation; the electronics section covers timers, tone/music generators, model-railway control, a frequency counter and a reaction-time meter. An English translation of this classic manual (Part 1) is now underway [2], making it accessible to a wider, non-German-speaking audience. A clever **trick** works around the low ~3–4 Hz GPIO sampling rate: input 4 clocks the firmware's background real-time clock, which can register frequencies up to 60 Hz, so externally generated pulses are

counted automatically and read out via the “get-time” instruction (F06).

Extensions, old and new. The original “2095” cassette interface is leisurely (a full dump takes ~ 220 s ≈ 14 baud); the “2092 special interface” doubles the GPIOs and adds relay-driving transistors (e.g. for Fischertechnik robots). There is no dedicated expansion bus — everything goes through the normal GPIOs. Modern extensions by the author include an Arduino-based speech synthesizer and a [2095 SD-card emulator](#) [15] (building on Martin Sauter's 2017 protocol decode), and especially [PicoRAM 2090](#) [14], a Raspberry Pico-based RAM emulator with SD card that replaces the 2114, adds bank-switched memory expansion and an extensive I/O expansion (speech, sound, OLED text/graphics, battery-backed clock). It is addressed through 64 “redundant”, ineffective instructions (such as `MOV <x> → <x>`, a NOP-like register-to-self copy) that never occur in normal programs; PicoRAM repurposes them as new side effects. PicoRAM 2090 won the RetroChallenge 2023/10 Grand Prize. A range of emulators also exists — the first written by the author in 1985 on a Schneider CPC 464 in BASIC; a [C/Linux emulator](#) by Ingo D. Rullhusen [32]; a [Macintosh app](#) by Stephan Kleinert [33]; and [Arduino-based hardware emulators](#) [13] from 2016 onward, including the “Microtronic 2nd / Next Generation” re-editions built into a Busch “2070” console (Hackaday “Reinvented Retro Contest” winner, 2021).

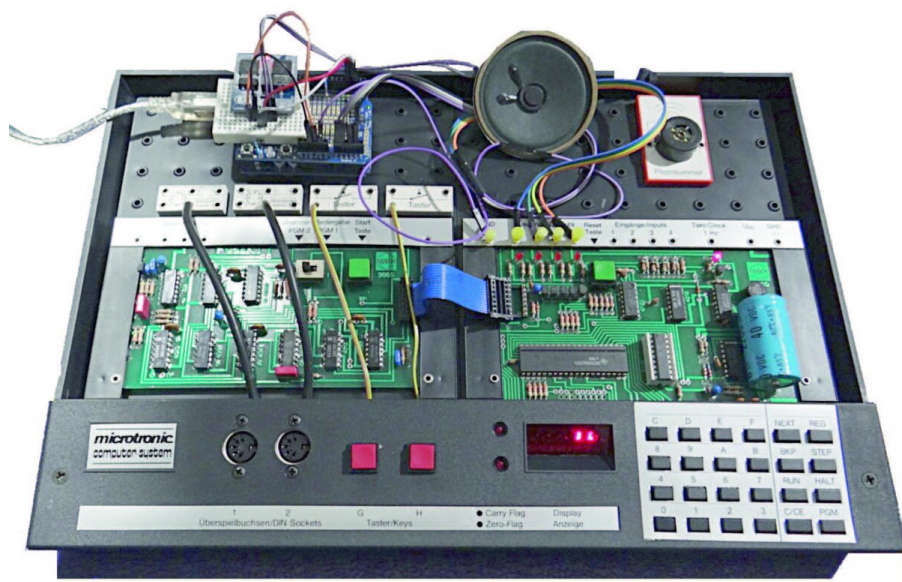


Figure 2. The Busch Microtronic with the original 2095 cassette interface and a DIY speech synthesizer.

Recent developments (2025–2026). The author has also used the Microtronic as the brain of larger systems: a recursive [Towers of Hanoi](#) [10] solver drives a physical pan/tilt **Hanoi robot** and, most recently, animates the solution on a **64×32 RGB LED matrix** — via a microcontroller that reads the Microtronic's moves over a simple 4-bit GPIO protocol (a video of the recursive solver running on the Microtronic is available [37]). And, most significantly of all, the original Microtronic firmware ROM was finally recovered and brought back to life on new hardware: the [Microtronic Phoenix](#) [16], described in the appendix.

Björn Rathje's projects. The most ambitious and impressive *contemporary software* projects for the Microtronic — the author's own Towers of Hanoi notwithstanding ;-) — come from [Björn Rathje](#) [20]. Working purely in the Microtronic's tiny 256-instruction machine language, he has produced a remarkable body of work that pushes the little 4-bit machine far beyond what its 1981 manuals

imagined:

- [Monarch2090](#) [21] — a faithful simulation of the legendary *Rotomat Monarch* (1972) slot machine on the Microtronic; the standout piece, and the most elaborate.
- [Kniffel2090](#) — Yahtzee (Kniffel) for the Microtronic.
- [Mensch2090](#) — “Mensch ärgere dich nicht” (the German Ludo / “Sorry!”-style board game).
- [Invaders2090](#) — Space Invaders on the Microtronic.
- [Life2090](#) — Conway’s Game of Life.
- [BerlinUhr2090](#) — the Berlin “set-theory clock” (Mengenlehre-Uhr) rendered on the Microtronic.
- [Film2090](#) — “the Microtronic goes to Hollywood”: a playful animation/film project.
- [ESP2090](#) — a modern take pairing the Microtronic world with an ESP32 and MicroPython.

That a 4-bit, 500 kHz machine with 1 KB of program memory can host a slot-machine simulation, several board and arcade games, and Game of Life is a testament both to the elegance of the Microtronic instruction set and to Rathje’s ingenuity.

2. The Kosmos CP1 (1983)



Figure 3. The Kosmos CP1, with its spiral-bound manual and the green quick-reference card.

The Kosmos CP1 was released in 1983 at an introductory price of DM 198, as a complement to Kosmos electronics kits (for example the “Elektronik Labor” sets): a Kosmos breadboard with the typical clamp contacts can be attached to it, and cables for the screw terminals at the back screw on directly. Its appearance is modern — the membrane keyboard and the large six-digit seven-segment display catch the eye, and it is immediately clear that exclusively the **decimal** number system is used (the hex digits A–F are nowhere to be found; the digit keys are even duplicated). The case is shapely but the build quality does not fully convince (thin plastic, a thick-cardboard base, and these days a strong flux smell). The membrane keyboard does not allow “blind” typing — there is no haptic pressure point — and the duplicated digit keys are, in the author’s opinion, a waste of space; the CAL key sits unfortunately close to INP, causing frequent accidental activations.

Processor. The heart of the CP1 is a mask-programmed **Intel 8049**, accompanied by an 8155 serving as 2 KByte 8-bit SRAM and for I/O. (Some units use the non-mask-programmed 8749 with an external EPROM instead — possibly early versions.) The 8049 is clocked at 6 MHz. Notably,

the foreword of the manual [4] was written by Prof. Karl Steinbuch, a prominent information-processing professor at the University of Karlsruhe, though his influence on the design is not documented. The CP1 is not programmed in the microcontroller's machine language (MCS-48) but in a virtual machine language executed by an interpreter; the 2 KB firmware contains the interpreter, the monitor and a few built-in programs.

Architecture. The CP1 is laid out as a strict, almost academic **decimal von-Neumann machine**. The only register is an accumulator; all operations to and from memory must pass through this "von-Neumann bottleneck". The base version offers 128 memory cells (program and data); the CP3 expansion raises this to 256. All data, instructions and addresses are encoded in decimal. Cells hold values from "00.000" to "24.255": for a cell "xy.abc", "xy" is the instruction code (01.–24.) and "abc" the operand or address (0–255); data cells use "00.abc". A separate decimal 8-bit I/O pointer (EAZ), shown via "9 OUT", is used for entering and inspecting cells (entries via "IN"/Enter auto-increment it). There is no breakpoint facility — one inserts HALT manually. The decimal scheme and the cumbersome "9 OUT" mechanism are ergonomically inferior to what hexadecimal would have afforded.

Instruction set. Instructions exist to display and delay, to load the accumulator with a constant or a cell and store it back, and to add/subtract a cell. An "implicit" flag is set by comparing the accumulator with a cell (equal/less/greater), after which a conditional (or unconditional) jump can run. A binary (0/1) accumulator can be negated and AND-ed with a binary cell; there are no bitwise operations. A loaded cell brings in both the operand "abc" and the opcode "xy."; performing arithmetic on a cell that actually holds an instruction (xy. $\neq$ 00) aborts the program with "F 002".

Strengths and weaknesses. A real strength is **indirect loading/storing** of the accumulator — like pointer variables in C — enabling lists, stacks and arrays, plus **indirect jumps** that make return stacks, nested subroutine calls, recursion, and even self-modifying and relocating programs possible. (Amusingly, the manual's relocation program only works in restricted cases — because of indirect addressing, program relocation is in general undecidable.) Against this, much is missed: I/O is limited (the display only shows the accumulator; the keyboard cannot be read by programs — external metal-bracket buttons serve instead), and there are no multiply/divide, random-number, or bitwise instructions. The accumulator must not over- or underflow (>255 or <0 aborts with "F 006", and there is no carry flag) — but here the decimal system becomes a stroke of genius: "greater than 99" comparisons let several cells be combined into arbitrarily wide registers, since $2 \times 99 < 255$. The instruction set is not terse: the strict von-Neumann model means almost every operation is load $\rightarrow$ manipulate $\rightarrow$ store, tripling the instruction count and quickly exhausting memory. The CP1 thus illustrates the von-Neumann bottleneck excellently (though the manual does not address this). It is, however, considerably faster than the Microtronic — the interpreter runs at about **3200 instructions/second**, nearly $30 \times$ the Microtronic — which matters for the GPIOs.

GPIOs and extensions. The CP1's large number of GPIOs is a clear strength: the base version already has an 8-bit input/output plus an 8-bit output, and the CP3 expansion adds a second 8-bit input/output and two further outputs (8 and 6 bits). Unlike the Microtronic, the CP1 has a dedicated expansion bus: the CP2 cassette interface, the CP3 memory/port expansion, the CP4 relay module (model railways, Fischertechnik robots) and the CP5 (eight LEDs + amplifiers on output 2, eight slide switches on input 1) can all be combined. The manual [4] is lovingly and didactically high-quality, using the "Computron" character to carry out the CPU operations; its programs resemble the Microtronic's (NIM, moon landing, dice, Senso, number guessing) and kit-based projects (timers, reaction testers, blinking lights, tone generators, alarms, model-railway control). Com-

pared with the Microtronic, some programs are less general — e.g. the CP1's NIM is hard-coded for 15 sticks / 3 removable and uses external buttons for input, since the keyboard cannot be read by programs. Both software and hardware (Arduino-based) emulations and re-implementations exist; since the firmware is available and the parts are standard, faithful re-implementations are easy (e.g. [MiniPC](#) [26] emulates the 8049 and runs the original firmware, while a [Java-based emulator](#) [27] reimplements the virtual machine directly), and an [Arduino-based CP2 cassette emulator](#) [23] has been developed. Further background on the CP1 is collected at the [8-bit Home Computer Museum](#) [28].

Recent developments (2025–2026). The same recursive Towers of Hanoi also runs on the CP1, which can likewise drive the 64×32 LED-matrix renderer. To make writing and loading CP1 programs painless, the author built a small [CP1 development toolchain](#) [11]: a real assembler (mnemonics, labels), and — after digitizing a genuine CP2 cassette save and reverse-engineering the previously undocumented CP1/CP2 FSK tape format — a tool that turns a program into a **cassette WAV** you simply play into the CP2, so programs load without any hand-keying (a video of the recursive Towers of Hanoi running on the CP1 is available [38]). This builds on a lively CP1 community — the [asig/kosmos-cp1](#) [22] emulator (with an integrated assembler and an SD-card tape emulator), the [RalphBln cassette emulator](#) [24], and the [moosy CP1 toolchain](#) [25] are all valuable companions.

3. The Philips MasterLab (1983)



Figure 4. The Philips MasterLab and its “Microcomputer Master Lab” manual.

Philips was at the time probably the second-largest supplier of experimentation kits on the German market, behind the leader Kosmos. In 1983 the MasterLab came out under the Philips label for DM 449.00, as part of the new “6000” (“ABC”) series; from 1984 Philips withdrew from the kit market and the series continued under the Schuco name (the takeover by the Mangold Group — Schuco, Trix, GAMA — had been decided in 1982). The 6000 kits, and thus the MasterLab, had been developed by Philips's educational-materials department together with the “Institut für Lehrerfortbildung” (Institute for Teacher Training) in Hamburg — in particular by Mr. Erhard Meyer, author of the manual [5], whose initials “E.M.” also appear in the firmware EPROM (“COPYRIGHT 1982,1983 (C) GAMA, E.M., ...”). What seems certain is that the MasterLab's birthplace lies in

Hamburg; more on its origins is collected on the [Philips/Schuco 6400 information page](#) [30].

External attributes. The MasterLab is a feast for the eyes — a shapely silver case with a transparent Plexiglas hood, colorful keys, and a seven-segment LED display of **eight** digits instead of six. A row of eight LEDs sits below the display, with three further LEDs (F1, F2, F3) and two input buttons (SA, SB); an SSA/LED switch toggles the display between seven-segment mode and the eight LEDs (driven by the middle digit's 7+1 segments). It even has an on/off switch and a reset button — neither of which the Microtronic or CP1 has — plus eight function keys for the monitor.

An unusual CPU. The board carries an **INS8070 (SC/MP III) CPU clocked at 4 MHz**. As in the Microtronic, a 2114 SRAM (here doubled, for 8 bits) provides 1 KB at 0x1000–0x13FF, with the firmware in a 4 KB (2732) EPROM up to 0x0FFF. Unlike the Microtronic and CP1, which run an interpreted higher-level language, the MasterLab is programmed **directly in INS8070 machine language** — it is therefore more a classic CPU trainer than an “educational computer”, and consequently far faster: the author measured **147,050 instructions/second**, making it roughly 1,290× the Microtronic and about 46× the CP1 (see the benchmark below). On power-up the monitor shows a friendly “HALLO” — making clear the display is good for more than hex; in fact every segment of every digit can be addressed individually (as the scrolling-text demo shows).

Button-controlled GPIOs. The buttons SA, SB and LEDs F1, F2, F3 are the GPIOs, brought out as a header and transistor-buffered — so the MasterLab offers only three digital outputs and two digital inputs (somewhat meager). Their connection is elegant, though: they are controlled **directly by the INS8070's flag/status register**, needing no firmware support, and SA/SB can even trigger interrupts — making them about two orders of magnitude faster than the CP1's. Unlike the others, the MasterLab has a built-in cassette interface, realized almost entirely in software: the fast I/O lets the CPU both generate the 1/2 kHz cassette tones and read them back via the SB input, observing the pulses directly in the status register. An expansion bus on the left brings out address, data and control buses (a RAM expansion would be easy); expansion boards were apparently envisioned but never released.

Firmware, manual and capabilities. The firmware holds demo programs (siren, lottery numbers, calculator, scrolling text, digital clock, traffic-light control on the F-LEDs, dice, ...), started via the SP key; the monitor resembles comparable trainers (e.g. the Multitech MPF-1), with A/D for address/data, ME+/ME- to step the address, SV/LD for cassette, and CPU to inspect/modify registers (“CPU 6” = accumulator, “CPU 0” = PC). Breakpoints and single-step are absent, but a HALT can be inserted manually. The manual [5] is a deep, comprehensive introduction to INS8070 programming — the CPU even offers 16-bit operations (the multiply combines A and E into a 16-bit register multiplied by the 16-bit T register, giving a 32-bit A,E,T result; a divide exists too), a stack pointer, two pointer registers (SP1, SP2) for indexed addressing, interrupts, and a wealth of addressing modes (immediate, absolute, implied, direct, indirect, indexed, relative). Firmware CALL routines ease programming (display control, 2-/4-digit hex input, decimal/hex conversion). The biggest shortcoming is the limited experimentation capability — the manual only demonstrates a loudspeaker, a lamp and a simple photoresistor light barrier; more GPIOs would have helped. The direct, firmware-free coupling of the GPIOs to the CPU is nonetheless brilliant. The learning material is far more complex, comprehensive and technical than the others' — a steeper curve, clearly aimed at adults / teacher training, and presented bone-dry — but the MasterLab is the only one offering a complete, realistic, practical path to microprocessor programming.



Figure 5. The Philips MasterLab with an attached experiment box.

Recent developments (2025–2026). Several projects have since appeared. Thorsten Brehm (“MacFly”) built a complete [MasterLab emulator](#) [29] in JavaScript/HTML-CSS (November 2024), playable online — the emulator used as a reference while developing the vector display below. And the author built a [vector-graphics display](#) [12] for the MasterLab: a program drives an X-Y oscilloscope to show a rotating 3-D wireframe (cube, torus, sphere) via a homemade R-2R DAC on the expansion bus — turning the INS8070’s speed and the expansion bus into a small vector-graphics engine.

Crucially, the perennial problem of *getting programs into the machine* now has a modern solution: [PicoRAM Ultimate](#) [31], a Raspberry Pi Pico-based SD-card RAM emulator for the MasterLab (a sibling of the Microtronic’s PicoRAM 2090). It plugs directly into the MasterLab’s two 2114 SRAM sockets via a ribbon cable and stands in for the machine’s RAM, loading and saving complete program images directly from an SD card. That turns the old chore of hand-keying — or waiting on the slow software cassette — into a file exchange: a demo such as the vector-graphics engine above can be dropped onto the SD card on a PC and loaded into the MasterLab in seconds, and programs can be archived and shared as ordinary files. PicoRAM Ultimate did not exist when the original article was written; today it is the most convenient way to develop for, and experiment with, the MasterLab.

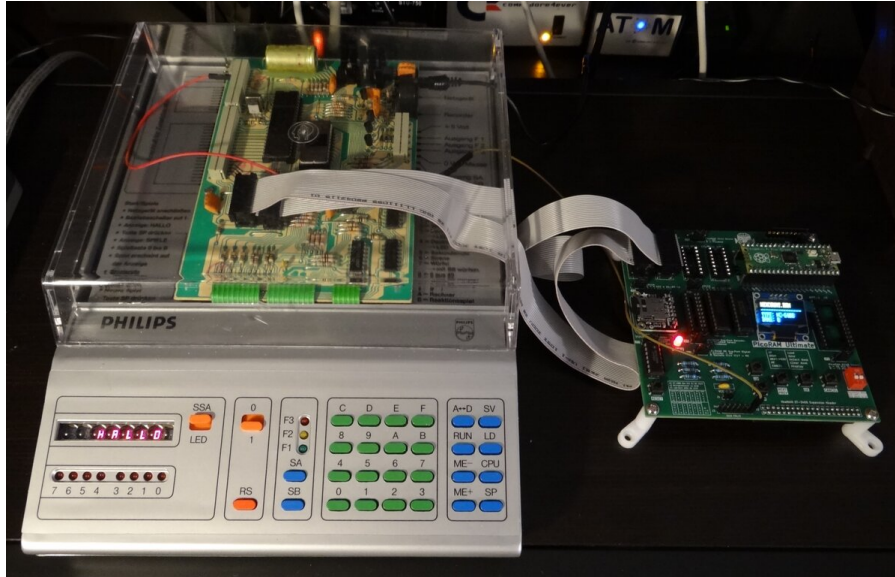


Figure 6. PicoRAM Ultimate (right) connected to the Philips MasterLab — it plugs directly into the machine's two 2114 SRAM sockets via the ribbon cable; the MasterLab's display shows its "HALLO" power-up greeting [31].

Comparison and conclusion

Speed: a measured benchmark

How fast are these machines, really? The author measured each one with the same simple benchmark — a program that toggles a GPIO output as fast as possible — and counted the resulting **instructions per second (ips)**. The differences are dramatic, and follow directly from the architectures: the Microtronic and CP1 *interpret* a virtual machine language (and the Microtronic is only 4-bit at 500 kHz), whereas the MasterLab runs INS8070 **native machine code** at 4 MHz.

Computer (CPU)	Clock	Model	Instr/sec	Relative
Busch Microtronic (TMS1600, 4-bit)	500 kHz	interpreted VM	≈ 114	$1\times$
Kosmos CP1 (Intel 8049, 8-bit)	6 MHz	interpreted VM	$\approx 3,200$	$\approx 28\times$
Philips MasterLab (INS8070, 8-bit)	4 MHz	native code	$\approx 147,050$	$\approx 1,290\times$

So the MasterLab is roughly **1,290 $\times$** faster than the Microtronic and about **46 $\times$** faster than the CP1 — the payoff of running native code instead of an interpreter. The Microtronic drops further still (to ≈ 40 ips) with the display switched on. The benchmark runs are shown on video for the Microtronic [34], the Kosmos CP1 [35], and the Philips MasterLab [36].

Overall scoring

All three machines have their strengths and weaknesses — none completely subsumes the others, and none is perfect. The author's (equally weighted) scoring across nineteen criteria is summarized below (higher = better):

	Criterion	Microtronic	CP1	MasterLab	
Period authenticity			3	2	1
Difficulty / suitability for children & teens			3	2	1
Monitor program			3	2	2
Ergonomics			2	1	2
Quality of manuals			3	2	2
Speed			1	2	3
Number of GPIOs			2	3	3
GPIO speed			1	2	3
Memory			2	2	3
Software			3	2	1
Experiments			3	3	1
Expandability			1	2	3
Expansion modules			2	3	1
Popularity / number of fans			2	3	1
Modern extensions			3	2	1
I/O capabilities			2	1	3
Addressing modes			1	2	3
Conciseness of CPU model			3	1	2
Capabilities of CPU model			2	1	3
TOTAL			42	38	37

Each machine wins a category. The **Microtronic**, with its almost completely orthogonal registers, has near-RISC qualities; its easy-to-learn, terse and powerful instruction set allows surprisingly complex programs in very little memory, and its manuals are ideal for children and teenagers — making it the clear winner in the **educational-computer** category. (Remarkably, even without addressable data memory it can host restricted recursion, just like the CP1.) The **CP1** teaches indirect addressing and indirect jumps, the pros and cons of the von-Neumann architecture, and how indirect memory addressing builds complex data structures; thanks to its many fast GPIOs it is the clear winner for measurement and control, and thus in the **experimentation-computer** category — although it must also be called the system of *squandered potential* (a few more instructions — keyboard input, display control, multiply/divide, random numbers, bitwise logic, hexadecimal — would have worked wonders, and there was room in the opcode space, if not in the 2 KB ROM). The **MasterLab** is the only “real” **CPU trainer**: solidly built, with a full expansion bus, very high speed, extremely fast (if few) GPIOs, interrupts, full per-segment display control, software tone generation, and the powerful INS8070 — but it arrived too late (1983/84), was comparatively expensive, and was developed somewhat past its target group around an already-irrelevant CPU.

In conclusion: the German educational computers are a fascinating and magnificent piece of technical history that did not exist in this form in other countries.

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About the author

Dr. Michael Wessel is a computer scientist and has worked in Silicon Valley, California, since 2010. He owes his professional career to the Busch Microtronic, which he received from his parents for Christmas in 1983. He has collected home computers since 2001 and is known in the scene as *LambdaMikel* and *MicrotronicHamburg* [39].

Appendix: The Microtronic Phoenix

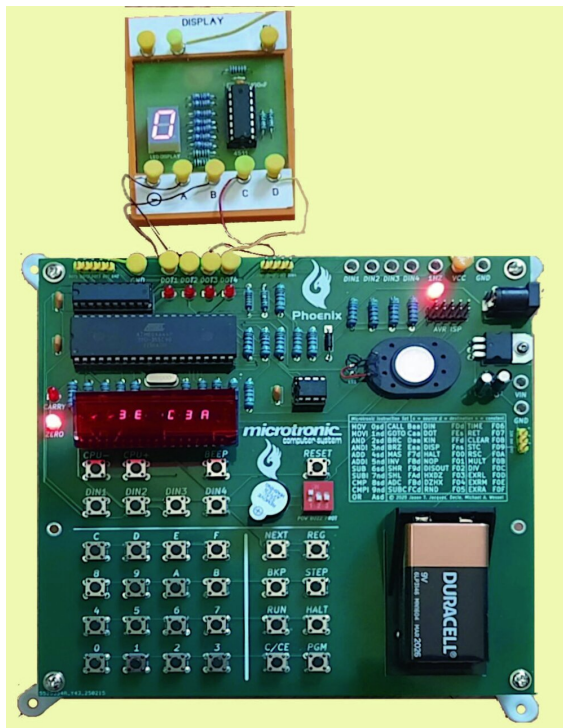


Figure 7. A new build running the original firmware: the Microtronic Phoenix [16].

All Microtronic emulators published up to 2025 are complete re-implementations: the Microtronic's behavior (operating system and virtual machine language) is emulated as faithfully as possible by a program. Using the *original* Microtronic firmware was, until recently, impossible — because it simply was not available. Regrettably, neither Busch nor TI had archived the Microtronic ROM, and the source code, too, had been lost; 40 years after the project's completion, no one could be located at the MRT company either. Moreover, until then no procedure was

known that would allow the firmware ROM of a mask-programmed TMS1600 to be read out: with a 6502- or Z80-based retro computer you can usually just read the firmware (E)PROM with a programmer, but for the TMS1600 no non-destructive procedure was known.

Reading out the firmware

This has now changed through our team's work [17]. In early 2024, on the occasion of a YouTube video about the "Radio Shack Science Fair Microcomputer Trainer" (SFMT), the author was contacted by Jason T. Jacques and "Decle", who had successfully read out the ROM of that very SFMT. The SFMT uses the "little brother" of the TMS1600 — the TMS1100. Might it therefore be possible to read the Microtronic firmware with the same method? It was not quite that simple. But over the following months our team developed a procedure that ultimately yielded the read-out Microtronic ROM. For this, the TMS1600 — like the TMS1100 before it — had to be put into its so-called test mode. The details of the TMS1600 test mode were not known, and there was no documented case on the internet; our experiments first had to determine which TMS1600 I/O pins activate this mode on reset. We also found that the protocol for serially (bit-by-bit) reading the ROM differs markedly from the documented TMS1100 protocol. This Microtronic-ROM "archaeology" thus required several weeks of intensive work and extensive experimentation. Despite all efforts, a few bits in the ROM image remained ambiguous, because the read-out process was not 100% deterministic; these were corrected manually by Jason through extensive firmware analysis and "sharp thinking", using "Decle"'s TMS1600 disassembler (he had also previously built the Arduino-based hardware and software for reading the SFMT's TMS1xxx firmware). Jason has documented the entire undertaking — the test-mode ROM extraction, the disassembly (with `naken_asm`), the schematic analysis and the breadboard recreation — in a detailed public write-up, "[Disassembling the Microtronic 2090](#)" [18]; the team's running build log is on Hackaday [17].

The Phoenix

The Microtronic ROM is interesting not only as a historical document, or for fully understanding the Microtronic's internals — we wanted to see it running again, on new hardware. That was also the only way to verify that we had indeed read out a working, authentic ROM (the read-out being somewhat "fuzzy"). So we built the Microtronic's software brain a new body — the [Microtronic Phoenix](#) [16]. It has been flying again since February 2025 and is made available to the public for replication. It is an ATmega-based hardware emulator that runs the original Microtronic ROM by means of a TMS1600 emulator [18].

As soon as the firmware was available, in autumn 2024, Jason had already rebuilt the Microtronic on a breadboard using the original hardware components (even an external 2114 SRAM). That prototype used shift registers to multiply the ports, which slowed the emulation, so in early 2025 we switched to the larger ATmega 644: it has enough I/O pins, more program memory and SRAM, and can be clocked with an external 20 MHz crystal. The Phoenix essentially gets by with a single chip — the ATmega 644 — though we added an external 256 kbit EEPROM as "mass storage" for programs, and a 74LS244 to decouple/protect the ATmega pins, which are brought out directly as the Microtronic I/O ports for experiments with Busch kits (or breadboards); in case of mishap, replacing a 74LS244 is cheaper than the ATmega. The EEPROM has room for 42 complete Microtronic memory dumps. The result behaves absolutely identically to the original — it runs the same firmware. A more authentic emulation is not possible: since we cannot simply program a "new" TMS1600 with the Microtronic firmware, TMS1600 emulation (here in hardware) remains the only way to let the original firmware fly again. A piezo buzzer is also on board, connectable via

a DIP switch to Microtronic output 4 (for experiments needing tone); four extra keys, DIN1–DIN4, can tie the corresponding Microtronic inputs HIGH (the original has two console buttons “G” and “H” often wired to inputs as external controls).

The Neo firmware

In addition to the original Microtronic mode, the Phoenix has a second firmware — a further development of the earlier Arduino emulators: the **“Neo” firmware**. On power-up/reset the Phoenix asks which to use (“1” for Neo, “2” for Phoenix). Neo offers extras — e.g. the loudspeaker can produce tones via redundant Microtronic instructions (as for PicoRAM), so simple melodies and sound effects can be programmed — and it is up to three times faster.

Neo also gives access to the EEPROM. On the original, PGM 1/PGM 2 access the 2095 cassette interface to load/save programs; we did not rebuild the cassette interface (the Phoenix cannot generate the 32 kHz tone clock the 2095 needs, although it runs the same PGM 1/PGM 2 ROM routines — but the [2095 SD-card emulator](#) [15] can be used). More practical is to use PGM 1/PGM 2 in Neo mode to access the EEPROM, loading/saving a full memory image via “slot” numbers 0–41 as “program names” (back in the day one noted the cassette counter reading instead). But how can the Phoenix firmware access the EEPROM, given the original ROM has no such code? A trick: the active firmware can be switched at any time by pressing reset, and both modes always see the same memory contents — so a program can be loaded from EEPROM under Neo and then switched to Phoenix mode, and run in either. This is handy for development too: develop in Phoenix mode and switch to Neo for speed, or develop in Neo (more direct EEPROM access) and switch to Phoenix for the most authentic behavior. A further advantage of Neo is that the virtual machine language (or the redundant instructions) can easily be adapted for one’s own experiments — it is, after all, a simple Arduino “C” program (not so easy with the original firmware). Thus a Microtronic variant was developed that acts as a MIDI drum computer / “drum sequencer”, requiring extensive instruction-set extensions and machine-language changes; this “Microtronic drum computer” won a prize in the RetroChallenge RC 2021/10 [19].

Despite all these extensions and advantages, nothing will be dearer to the Microtronic fan than the original. With the Phoenix we now have, after 44 years, a re-edition of the Microtronic that truly deserves the name: an emulator that could not be more authentic. The name *Phoenix* therefore seemed fitting — the Microtronic ROM, all but lost in the flames of history, flies once more, and with it the Microtronic. With new hardware the Microtronic has now truly become “immortal”, and will go on finding new fans for decades to come.

The Microtronic Phoenix is documented in detail in its project build logs [40] and has been covered by Hackaday [41] and Hackster.io [42]. Credit for the ROM excavation and the Phoenix hardware is shared with Jason T. Jacques and “Dede”, whose work is referenced above.